Society for Research in Child Development

WILEY

The Determinants of Parenting: A Process Model

Author(s): Jay Belsky

Source: *Child Development*, Feb., 1984, Vol. 55, No. 1 (Feb., 1984), pp. 83-96

Published by: Wiley on behalf of the Society for Research in Child Development

Stable URL: https://www.jstor.org/stable/1129836

JSTOR is a not-for-profit service that helps scholars, researchers, and students discover, use, and build upon a wide range of content in a trusted digital archive. We use information technology and tools to increase productivity and facilitate new forms of scholarship. For more information about JSTOR, please contact support@jstor.org.

Your use of the JSTOR archive indicates your acceptance of the Terms & Conditions of Use, available at https://about.jstor.org/terms

Society for Research in Child Development and *Wiley* are collaborating with JSTOR to digitize, preserve and extend access to *Child Development*

JSTOR

This content downloaded from 111.241.130.57 on Sun, 06 Jul 2025 08:18:32 UTC
All use subject to https://about.jstor.org/terms

The Determinants of Parenting: A Process Model

Jay Belsky
Pennsylvania State University

BELSKY, JAY. *The Determinants of Parenting: A Process Model.* CHILD DEVELOPMENT, 1984, **55**, 83–96. This essay is based on the assumption that a long-neglected topic of socialization, the determinants of individual differences in parental functioning, is illuminated by research on the etiology of child maltreatment. Three domains of determinants are identified (personal psychological resources of parents, characteristics of the child, and contextual sources of stress and support), and a process model of competent parental functioning is offered on the basis of the analysis. The model presumes that parental functioning is multiply determined, that sources of contextual stress and support can directly affect parenting or indirectly affect parenting by first influencing individual psychological well-being, that personality influences contextual support/stress, which feeds back to shape parenting, and that, in order of importance, the personal psychological resources of the parent are more effective in buffering the parent-child relation from stress than are contextual sources of support, which are themselves more effective than characteristics of the child.

By tradition, students of socialization have directed their primary energies toward understanding processes whereby parents' childrearing strategies and behaviors shape and influence their offsprings' development. It is of interest to learn that, while great effort has been expended studying the characteristics and consequences of parenting, much less attention has been devoted to studying why parents parent the way they do—beyond, of course, social-class and cross-cultural comparisons and investigations examining the effect of the child on parenting behavior. This is not to say, however, that no data have been collected on this topic beyond those general areas of inquiry just outlined. In fact, it is surprising to learn that, despite the *relative* neglect of the study of the determinants of parenting, a large quantity of empirical information is available that addresses this general issue.

It is unfortunately the case that much of the research relevant to this area of concern remains unintegrated and underutilized. This is, in part, a function of the general absence of conceptual models capable of integrating the disparate findings in the literature into a coherent whole that is greater than the sum of its parts. It is the basic premise of this essay that research on, and interest in, child abuse—a concern of applied science—has much to contribute toward an empirical synthesis with regard to the subject of the determinants of individual differences in parenting—a concern of basic science. Especially significant in this regard is work on the etiology of child maltreatment (for reviews, see Belsky, 1980; Parke & Collmer, 1975). Available theory and research on the etiology of child abuse and neglect draw attention to three general sources of influence on parental functioning: (1) the parents' ontogenic origins and personal psychological resources, (2) the child's characteristics of individuality, and (3) contextual sources of stress and support. In asking questions about the etiology of child abuse and neglect, clinicians and research scientists alike have been essentially inquiring into the determinants of parental functioning—or, more precisely, parental dysfunction. It still remains to be determined, however, whether processes iden-

I owe a special debt of gratitude to my research assistant, Joan Vondra, whose superb assistance in reviewing and organizing the literature cited, and in editing the final manuscript, helped bring this effort to fruition. Work on this paper was supported by grants from the National Science Foundation (No. SES-8108886), the National Institute of Child Health and Human Development (No. R01HD15496-01A1), the Division of Maternal and Child Health of the Public Health Service (No. MC-R-424067-02-0), and by the March of Dimes Birth Defects Foundation (Social and Behavior Science Branch, No. 12-64). Address reprint requests to Jay Belsky, College of Human Development, Department of Individual and Family Studies, Pennsylvania State University, University Park, Pennsylvania 16802.

[*Child Development*, 1984, **55**, 83–96. © 1984 by the Society for Research in Child Development, Inc. All rights reserved. 0009-3920/84/5501-0003$01.00]

This content downloaded from
111.241.130.57 on Sun, 06 Jul 2025 08:18:32 UTC
All use subject to https://about.jstor.org/terms

tified as exerting an influence in extreme cases (i.e., child abuse) also function in the normal range of parental behavior. The critical question, then, that this essay and research on child abuse raises concerns whether a continuum of influence exists.

In the remainder of this essay this general issue is explored by examining available evidence in support of a continuum of influence; that is, evidence suggesting that determinants of parenting highlighted by child abuse research also play a role in influencing parenting that falls within the range of normal functioning. To facilitate this analysis, discussion is organized around the three general sources of influence delineated in the preceding paragraph. The principal goal of this essay is to draw on this analysis, itself based on the study of dysfunctional parenting, to substantiate a general model of the determinants of parental functioning.

The model to be explicated in the course of reviewing relevant data is presented in schematic form in Figure 1. As can be seen from the diagram, the model presumes that parenting is directly influenced by forces emanating from within the individual parent (personality), within the individual child (child characteristics of individuality), and from the broader social context in which the parent-child relationship is embedded—specifically, marital relations, social networks, and occupational experiences of parents. Furthermore, the model assumes that parents' developmental histories, marital relations, social networks, and jobs influence individual personality and general psychological well-being of parents and, thereby, parental functioning and, in turn, child development. By considering research pertinent to each of these lines of argument, support for three general conclusions regarding the determinants of parenting will be provided: (1) parenting is multiply determined; (2) with respect to their influence on parenting, characteristics of the parent, of the child, and of the social context are not equally influential in supporting or undermining growth-promoting parenting; and (3) developmental history and personality shape parenting indirectly, by first influencing the broader context in which parent-child relations exist (i.e., marital relations, social networks, occupational experience).

Before proceeding to review work bearing on the determinants of parenting, two points need to be noted. First, most of the available research is based on nonexperimental and correlational studies; thus it does not document cause-and-effect relations. Despite this fact, the literature will often be discussed in just such terms for heuristic purposes—that is, to advance thinking about the origins of individual differences in parental functioning. Even though this practice will be adopted, the degree to which the proposed model can be substantiated will be limited by the designs of studies available in the literature. This is because few studies provide all the evidence necessary for a model highlighting the notion that the determinants of parenting shape childrearing, which in turn influences child development. In most cases only the first or last two links in this causal chain are pursued in any single research effort, and, all too frequently, it is only the first and last that leave the reader and investigator to speculate on the process connecting determinants like parent personality or social support with child development outcomes.

The Parent's Contribution

Research on child maltreatment indicates that parenting, like most dimensions of human functioning, may be influenced by enduring characteristics of the individual, characteristics that are, at least in part, a product of a person's developmental history. To obtain a better sense of just how de-

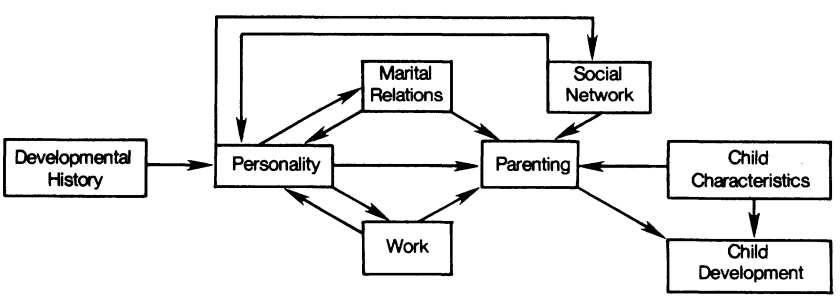


FIG. 1.—A process model of the determinants of parenting

This content downloaded from
111.241.130.57 on Sun, 06 Jul 2025 08:18:32 UTC
All use subject to https://about.jstor.org/terms

velopmental history and personality influence parenting, it is useful to consider briefly the kind of parenting that appears to promote optimal child functioning and to speculate on the type of personality most likely to provide such developmental care. In the infancy period, detailed observational studies reveal that cognitive-motivational competence and healthy socioemotional development are promoted by attentive, warm, stimulating, responsive, and nonrestrictive caregiving (for a review, see Belsky, Lerner, & Spanier, in press). The work of Baumrind (1967, 1971) demonstrates that during the preschool years high levels of nurturance and control foster the ability to engage peers and adults in a friendly and cooperative manner, as well as the capacity to be instrumentally resourceful and achievement-striving. And, as children grow older, parental use of induction or reasoning, consistent discipline, and expression of warmth have been found to relate positively to self-esteem, internalized controls, prosocial orientation, and intellectual achievement during the school-age years (e.g., Coopersmith, 1967; Hoffman, 1970; McCall, Applebaum, & Hagarty, 1973).

Consideration of these findings and others suggest that, across childhood, parenting that is *sensitively* attuned to children's capabilities and to the developmental tasks they face promotes a variety of highly valued developmental outcomes, including emotional security, behavioral independence, social competence, and intellectual achievement (Belsky, Lerner, & Spanier, in press). What kind of person should be able to provide such developmentally flexible and growth-promoting care? The sensitive individual, one might argue, is able to decenter and to appraise accurately the perspective of others, is able to empathize with them, and, in addition, is able to adopt a nurturant orientation. It seems reasonable to speculate that people most able to do this would be mature, psychologically healthy adults. Unfortunately, the literature linking personality and parenting is not nearly as rich nor as extensive as one might expect. Nevertheless, the limited data that are available can be marshaled to provide some support for the notion that personal maturity, psychological well-being, and growth-facilitating parenting covary with each other.

If age is conceived as a marker for maturity, then the recent observation that primiparous mothers interact with their young infants in a more positively affectionate, stimulating, and sensitive manner the older they are (Ragozin, Basham, Crnic, Greenberg, & Robinson, 1982) provides one piece of evidence for the hypothesized relationship between personality and parental functioning. So, too, do data on teenage mothers, who are presumably less psychologically mature than older mothers. Not only is there evidence that such young mothers express less desirable child-rearing attitudes and have less realistic expectations for infant development than do older mothers (Field, Widmayer, Stringer, & Ignatoff, 1980) but, from a more behavioral standpoint, it has been observed that they also tend to be less responsive to their newborns (Jones, Green, & Krauss, 1980) and to engage infants in less verbal interaction (Osofsky & Osofsky, 1970). Even more direct support for a personality-parenting linkage can be found in Mondell and Tyler's (1981) data linking internal locus of control, high levels of interpersonal trust, and an active coping style on the part of parents to high levels of observed warmth, acceptance, and helpfulness and to low levels of disapproval when interacting with their young children.

Potentially more compelling evidence in its documentation of the influence of personal psychological attributes on parental functioning can be found in investigations of psychologically disturbed adults (e.g., Baldwin, Cole, & Baldwin, 1982; Rutter, 1966). The disturbance in parental psychological functioning receiving the most attention in this regard is depression (Fabian & Donahue, 1956; Pollitt, 1965), with Weissman providing one of the most extensive and informative studies (Orraschel, Weissman, & Kidd, 1980; Weissman & Paykel, 1974). Depressed mothers, it was observed, offered a disruptive, hostile, rejecting home environment to their children, which, not surprisingly, undermined child functioning (see also Colletta, 1983).

The model of parental functioning being developed assumes that linkages between parents' psychological well-being and their parental functioning may be traced back, at least to some extent, to the experiences parents had while growing up. Three distinct sets of data illuminate such a relationship between developmental history and parenting. Literature on child abuse furnishes the first set, by underscoring an association between experience of mistreatment in one's own childhood and mistreatment of one's children (Belsky, 1978, 1980; Parke & Collmer, 1975). The second set of data link-

This content downloaded from
111.241.130.57 on Sun, 06 Jul 2025 08:18:32 UTC
All use subject to https://about.jstor.org/terms

ing developmental history and parenting derives from the study of depression, which indicates that the stressful experience of separation from parent as a child is not only a risk factor in the etiology of this affective disturbance (Brown & Harris, 1978) but is also related to difficulties in caring for young children (Frommer & O'Shea, 1973a, 1973b) and, probably as a consequence, to less than optimal functioning on the part of the child (Hall, Pawlby, & Wolkind, 1980). Finally, research on fathering reveals that both high levels of paternal involvement in one's own childhood (Manion, 1977; Reuter & Biller, 1973; Sagi, 1982) and low levels of paternal involvement (DeFrain, 1979; Eiduson & Alexander, 1978) forecast high levels of involvement in the care of one's own children. A possible explanation of this apparent inconsistency may be found in the processes of identification and male personality development (Bronfenbrenner, 1960). Fathers who are warm, nurturant, and involved probably rear sons who identify with and model them, whereas noninvolved fathers, who in all likelihood generate a weak identification and a low probability of being modeled, perhaps stimulate a compensatory process that later prompts sons to parent in a manner expressly opposite that of their own fathers.

The data summarized through this point have been marshaled to support the contention that developmental history shapes personality and psychological well-being, which in turn influences parental functioning. Indeed, a hypothesis that I advance is that, in general, supportive developmental experiences give rise to a mature healthy personality, that is then capable of providing sensitive parental care which fosters optimal child development.

The Child's Contribution

The characteristic of the child that has received the most attention in terms of influencing parental functioning is temperament, especially those behavioral styles that make parenting more or less difficult (Bates, 1980). Although the findings to date are mixed (Bates, 1980), select evidence certainly does exist in support of the notion that difficult temperament, especially in infancy, can undermine parental functioning. Campbell (1979) reported, for example, that, when mothers rated their infants as having difficult temperaments at 3 months, they interacted with them less and were less responsive to their cries at 3 and 8 months, compared with a set of matched controls. Similarly, Milliones (1978) discerned a significant negative association between mothers' perceptions of difficultness and outreach workers' ratings of maternal responsiveness when infants averaged 11 months of age. And, as a final illustrative finding, Kelley (1976) reported that mothers of more difficult 4-month-olds tended to respond negatively to negative infant emotions.

Because the child's influence on parenting is so widely recognized by developmentalists, we have chosen not to treat this issue in detail. Nevertheless, the limited evidence just reviewed does illustrate the now well-accepted point that, even in nonabusive samples, characteristics of children hypothesized to make them more or less difficult to care for do indeed seem to shape the quantity and quality of parental care they receive. One further point worth noting is that, while speculation abounds with respect to the need to consider child characteristics in the context of parent characteristics (e.g., personality, expectations), surprisingly little work illuminating such interactive processes is actually available. What does exist may be marshaled to support the conclusion that neither temperament nor other child characteristics per se shape parenting, but rather that the "goodness-of-fit" between parent and child determines the development of parent-child relations (Lerner & Lerner, 1983).

Contextual Sources of Stress and Support

Although both parent and child contributions to differences in parenting have been addressed here, an ecological perspective on this topic requires consideration of the *context* of parent-child relations as well. For this purpose, one may turn to the abundance of evidence which highlights the generally beneficial impact of social support on both psychological and physical health (e.g., Mitchell & Trickett, 1980). Of particular significance is research chronicling a support/general well-being relationship in the case of parents (Colletta, 1983; Colletta & Gregg, 1981; Nuckolls, Cassell, & Kaplan, 1972). But even more important than evidence indicating that overall support positively influences psychological well-being in general, and the mental health of parents in particular, is research demonstrating that, possibly as a consequence, overall support is positively related to parental functioning.

This content downloaded from
111.241.130.57 on Sun, 06 Jul 2025 08:18:32 UTC
All use subject to https://about.jstor.org/terms

Open-ended interviews by Colletta (1979) with three groups of mothers with preschoolers (low- and middle-income single parents, middle-income married mothers) revealed that total support (provided by friends, relatives, and spouse) was negatively associated with maternal restrictiveness and punitiveness. In fact, she was led to conclude on the basis of her data, that "mothers receiving the least amount of total support tended to have more household rules and to use more authoritarian punishment techniques" (p. 843). Consistent with these findings are results of a study indicating that the social support available to mothers of 3-year-olds who had required intensive care as neonates predicted the extent to which they were stimulating in their parenting (Pascoe, Loda, Jeffries, & Easp, 1981). What is especially intriguing about each of these sets of data is that it is just the kind of parenting that Colletta and Pascoe et al. have related to social support that other investigators have linked to child competence (e.g., responsiveness) and incompetence (e.g., authoritarian rearing).

That parenting appears to be positively associated with social support should not be surprising. As noted already, support and general well-being have been repeatedly linked. And if one conceives growth-promoting parenting as a dimension of mental health, then the link between parenting and support may be but one way the more general support/well-being relationship manifests itself. But even after highlighting such general associations, two specific questions remain regarding the role of social support in an analysis of the determinants of parenting: How does support influence parenting? and From where does influential support derive? To address these issues, the following discussion is subdivided according to both the function of support and its particular sources, and the evidence pertinent to a more refined and differentiated understanding of how support affects parental functioning is reviewed.

Functions of Support

In line with the extensive literature on social support, it is likely that, in the case of parenting, social support functions in three general ways: (1) by providing emotional support, (2) by providing instrumental assistance, and (3) by providing social expectations (e.g., Mitchell & Trickett, 1980; Powell, 1980). Emotional support can be defined as the love and interpersonal acceptance an individual receives from others, either through explicit statements to the effect or as a result of considerate and caring actions. Instrumental assistance can take a variety of forms, including the provision of information and advice, and help with routine tasks, including child care. Finally, social expectations serve as guides about what is and is not appropriate behavior.

Expectations and advice, it is important to note, may not always serve a truly supportive function or facilitate parenting. This would seem to be especially the case when expectations are inconsistent (Belsky, Robins, & Gamble, in press; Lamb & Easterbrooks, 1980) or contrary to an individual's own inclinations (Minturn & Lambert, 1964; Stolz, 1967). Indeed, several interview studies with women highlight the significance of having a social network characterized by a congruence of ideological views, with career-oriented women who interact primarily with women of more traditional sex-role orientation generally reporting less satisfaction in the parenting role than women whose social networks share their views (Power & Parke, 1983).

Each type of support cited above can function to influence parenting both directly and indirectly (Belsky, Robins, & Gamble, in press). Direct effects are those that are targeted at parental behavior, whereas indirect effects are mediated by other factors. When parents are praised, for example, by a neighbor or a teacher for their child's good behavior or for their skill in handling children, emotional support can be considered direct with respect to parenting; when a husband lets his mate know she is loved and cherished in general, however, we assume such positive sentiments, though not directly targeted at parenting, nevertheless affect caregiving and are therefore regarded as indirect forms of emotional support.

Sources of Stress Support

The work on child abuse highlights three distinct sources of stress and support that are likely to promote or undermine parental competence: the marital relationship, social networks, and employment.

The marital relationship.—Although the evidence to date is not sufficient to document Belsky's (1981) claim that the marital relationship serves as the principal support system for parents, the effect of spousal relations on parenting has been implicated by studies of quite different de-

This content downloaded from
111.241.130.57 on Sun, 06 Jul 2025 08:18:32 UTC
All use subject to https://about.jstor.org/terms

velopmental periods (Belsky, Lerner, & Spanier, in press). Whereas the work of Pedersen (1982) and Price (Note 1) implicates the positive influence of husbands' supportiveness and positive regard on mothering during infancy, the work of Belsky (1979; Belsky, Gilstrap, & Rovine, in press) documents consistent linkages between high levels of father involvement and frequent marital communication at 1, 3, 9, and 15 months. Consistent with these results are those reported by Feldman, Nash, and Aschenbrenner (Note 2), indicating that marital quality was one of the most consistently powerful predictors of fathering observed in free and structured laboratory play situations, and those of Gibaud-Wallston and Wandersman (Note 3), indicating that fathers who felt support from their wives had a high sense of parental competence regardless of the temperamental difficulty of their infants.

Investigations linking marital relations and parenting during the preschool years are generally consistent with those just summarized, which focus on the parent-infant relationship. Bandura and Walters (1959) observed that mothers inclined to nag and scold their sons felt less warmth and affection toward their husbands. Complementing these findings are data from a study by Sears, Maccoby, and Levin (1957) indicating that mothers' professed esteem for their husbands was systematically related to the praise they directed at their preschool children. Since it is just the kind of parenting observed in these two investigations that predicts less than optimal or competent child functioning, there are grounds for inferring a process of influence from marriage to parenting to child development (Belsky, 1981; Crouter, Belsky, & Spanier, 1983).

During the elementary school and adolescent years, high interspousal hostility has been linked to the frequent use of punishment and the infrequent use of induction or reasoning as a disciplinary strategy (Dielman, Barton, & Cattell, 1977; Kemper & Reichler, 1976). Johnson and Lobitz (1974) report, for example, consistent negative relationships between marital satisfaction and the level of observed negativeness to children in their study of 31 boys, age 2–12 years, who had been referred for behavioral counseling. The reason for this, Olweus's (1980) recent work on the development of aggression indicates, is that the quality of the emotional relationship between spouses influence mothers' negativism toward their adolescent sons, which itself leads to aggressive, antisocial behavior.

In sum, the data reviewed in this section strongly suggest that, to understand parenting and its influence on child development, attention must be accorded to the marital relationship (Belsky, 1981). At the same time, it is essential to bear in mind the possibility that marital quality is itself a function of the developmental histories and the personalities of the individuals in the relationship. The possibility must also be entertained that marital relations do not so much influence parenting directly as they do indirectly—by having an impact on the general psychological well-being of individuals and only thereby the skills they exercise in the parenting role (see Figure 1) (Brown & Harris, 1978; Carveth & Gottlieb, 1979; Johnson & Lobitz, 1974; Wandersman, Wandersman, & Kahn, 1980).

Social network.—Although social isolation has been identified as a risk condition and associated with dysfunctional parenting in the case of child abuse, it would be inappropriate to assume that more social network contact with friends, neighbors, and relatives is always advantageous. Contact that would normally function supportively may become stressful if taken to an extreme. Indeed, what is probably most beneficial is what French, Rodgers, and Cobb (1974) refer to as a "goodness-of-fit," representing the match between support desired and support received.

These comments notwithstanding, it is clear that availability of significant others and the support received from them exert a beneficial impact on parent-child relations (Aug & Bright, 1970; Hetherington, Cox, & Cox, 1977; McLanahan, Wedemeyer, & Adelberg, 1981; Toms-Olson, 1981). Powell (1980) discovered that, during the infancy period, the qualities of mothering predictive of child competence during the preschool years—namely, verbal and emotional responsivity—were more characteristic of mothers who had weekly or more frequent contact with friends (see also Crnic, Greenberg, Ragozin, Robinson & Basham, 1983). Abernethy (1973) found that, during the preschool years, the presence of a tightly knit social network to be positively associated with parents' sense of competence in the caregiving role, with competence being defined in terms of the mother's recognition of the malleability of her children, an appreciation of individual differences, and knowledge of how child-rearing practices need to be adjusted to match the child's developmental capabilities. Consistent with these data are those of Pascoe et al. (1981),

This content downloaded from
111.241.130.57 on Sun, 06 Jul 2025 08:18:32 UTC
All use subject to https://about.jstor.org/terms

who found that social network contact and supportiveness correlated positively with the physical and temporal organization of the child's world, and with mothers' avoidance of punishment and restriction.

In the case of social network support, just as in the case of the marital relationship, the possibility must be entertained that the benefits that accrue from network contact with respect to parental functioning are mediated by the parent's own psychological well-being (see Figure 1). In this regard, Cochran and Brassard (1979) hypothesized that the support that social networks provide can enhance self-esteem and, as a consequence, increase the patience and sensitivity that individuals exercise in the parenting role. Data presented by Aug and Bright (1970), Belle (Note 4), and Colletta, Lee, and Gregg (Note 5) tend to substantiate this hypothesis.

Work.—The third and final contextual source of stress/support on parenting considered here is suggested by research that links unemployment and labor market shrinkage with child maltreatment (Light, 1973; Steinberg, Catalano, & Dooley, 1981). It is not only investigations of child abuse, however, that highlight the deleterious consequences of unemployment with respect to parent-child relations (Bronfenbrenner & Crouter, 1983; Elder, 1974; Komarovsky, 1940). Beyond the study of unemployment, the greatest source of information pertinent to the impact of work on parenting is found in the literature on maternal employment. Even though a sizable proportion of studies fail to document any such effects (e.g., Hock, 1980; Schubert, Bradley-Johnson, & Nuttal, 1980), several others do suggest that a mother's employment status influences both the quantity and quality of her own and her spouse's parenting behavior. Quite a few investigations indicate, for example, that maternal employment creates strain in the father-son relationship in lower-income families (Douvan, 1963; McCord, McCord, & Thurber, 1963; Propper, 1972). This may be because in such households a mother's entry into the work force is regarded as an indication of the inadequacy of father as provider (Hoffman, 1979; Bronfenbrenner & Crouter, 1983; Hoffman, 1979). A number of studies also demonstrate that parental expectations of children are greater when both parents are employed outside the home, particularly with respect to those aspects of home maintenance and self-maintenance for which children are held responsible (e.g., Douvan, 1963; Propper, 1972). And other studies record positive developmental outcomes associated with such demands (e.g., Elder, 1974; Woods, 1972).

A major limitation of all the studies cited here attempting to document the effect of maternal employment on parenting is their undifferentiated classification of employment (Bronfenbrenner & Crouter, 1982; Crouter, Belsky, & Spanier, 1983). And research on maternal attitudes toward work clearly establishes the need to consider maternal employment as more than simply a "social address," if an understanding of *how* it affects parenting and thereby child development is to be achieved. Not only is there evidence that mothers who are dissatisfied with their employment status have offspring whose development is further from optimal than those whose mothers are more satisfied with their work situation (Farel, 1980; Hock, 1980; Hoffman, 1961; Yarrow, Scott, Deleeuw, & Heinig, 1962), but several studies suggest that parenting itself is compromised under such stressful conditions. Stuckey, McGhee, and Bell (1982, p. 643) found that "parental negative affect was exhibited more frequently by parents with attitudes toward dual roles for women that did not match the employment status of the mother in their family." Similarly, Hoffman (1963) found that the working mothers who liked their work displayed more affection and used less severe discipline with their children, while Yarrow et al. (1962) reported that mothers dissatisfied with their employment status expressed more problems in child rearing.

The increase in understanding of how work affects parenting that accrues when maternal employment is treated as more than simply a "social address" is evident in research on father's work, particularly that which provides support for Aberle and Naegele's (1952) hypothesis that value orientations in the husband's work situation are operationalized in child-rearing attitudes and behavior (Bronfenbrenner & Crouter, 1983). Most notable in this regard is Kohn's (1963) work demonstrating "that working-class men, whose jobs typically require compliance to authority, tend to hold values that stress obedience and conformity in their children" and to favor physical punishment (Bronfenbrenner & Crouter, 1982, p. 23), whereas middle-class fathers, whose jobs require self-direction and independence, instead value the latter attributes in their children.

In addition to self-direction, other di-

This content downloaded from
111.241.130.57 on Sun, 06 Jul 2025 08:18:32 UTC
All use subject to https://about.jstor.org/terms

mensions of paternal unemployment have been linked to parenting. In his longitudinal study of men in professional jobs, Heath (1976) found the characteristics Kanter (1978) referred to as "work absorption" related to paternal inadequacy. Specifically, the more time and energy fathers devoted to their occupations, the more irritable and impatient they were with their children, as indicated by both husbands' and wives' reports (see also Moen, 1982). And in a somewhat different vein, Kemper and Reichler (1976) and McKinley (1964) demonstrated that father's job satisfaction is inversely related to the severity of punishment he dispenses and his reliance upon reasoning as a disciplinary strategy.

As was postulated in prior discussions of marital relations and social networks, it is quite conceivable that many of these work-parenting associations are actually mediated by effects that employment and work conditions have on personality and general psychological well-being (see Figure 1). Of interest in this regard is recent work demonstrating that "job conditions directly or indirectly encourage occupational self-direction and are conducive to effective intellectual functioning and an open and flexible orientation to others. Job conditions that constrain opportunities for self-direction or subject the worker to any of several types of pressures or uncertainties result in less effective intellectual functioning, unfavorable evaluations of self, and a rigid, intolerant social orientation" (Miller, Schooler, Kohn, & Miller, 1979, p. 91). These latter personal styles could hardly be considered encouraging portends of sensitive, growth-promoting parenting practices.

Conclusion: Relative importance of contextual sources of stress/support.— Throughout the preceding discussion of the roles that marriage, social networks, and work assume in supporting or undermining growth-promoting parental functioning, only the consequences of variation within any single sphere of influence has been considered. What remains to be addressed is the relative contribution made by each of these three contextual dimensions. I remain of the opinion that the marital relationship is the first-order support system, with inherent potential for exerting the most positive or negative effect on parental functioning. This seems reasonable if only because emotional investment is routinely greater in the marriage, as is time spent in this relationship.

Two important studies have been reported recently that address this issue of the *relative* importance of marital support versus certain other kinds of support. In Colletta's (Note 6) investigation of 50 adolescent mothers, the emotional assistance received from family of origin (i.e., social network) was found to be most predictive of maternal attitudes and affectionate behavior, and support received from boyfriend or spouse was next in order of importance, followed finally by friendship support. In another investigation, studying 105 mothers and their full-term and preterm 4-month-olds, "intimate support [from spouse] proved to have the most general positive effects, although community and friendship support appear[ed] valuable to maternal attitudes as well" (Crnic et al., 1983, p. 215). That the availability of, and mothers' satisfaction with, spouse support turned out to be the most significant predictors of a mother's positive attitude toward parenting and of the affect she displayed in face-to-face interaction led Crnic et al. to express strong agreement with "Belsky's (1981) notion that a positive marital relationship is a major support of competent parenting" (p. 215). Moreover, their discovery that empirical relations between all types of maternal social support and infant functioning became insignificant once mother's observed behavior was statistically controlled provided the basis for the conclusion that support exerts a primarily indirect effect on the child. Consistent with our own thinking, the hypothesis was also advanced by Crnic et al. that with age the possibility of direct influences probably increases.

Probably under certain conditions marriage plays a less influential role than that chronicled by Crnic et al. (1983). Under circumstances such as single parenthood and teenage parenthood, social networks will presumably serve as the principal source of support, as Colletta's (Note 6) data indicate. The same may be true for traditional blue-collar marriages, in which husband and wife roles typically serve more instrumental than intimate functions and in which neither friendship nor romance, and thus emotional support, are the principal reasons for the relationship. Young and Willmott's (1957) description of social network ties in East London, particularly by those of mothers to their families of origin, clearly suggests this to be the case.

With respect to occupation, it is unclear at present what its relative influence will be. The more important work is in one's hierar-

This content downloaded from
111.241.130.57 on Sun, 06 Jul 2025 08:18:32 UTC
All use subject to https://about.jstor.org/terms

chy of identities, the more influence it is likely to exert. The job absorption that Kanter (1978) discussed and Heath (1976) chronicled as undermining a father's patience, for example, will function principally when work is seen as a career and achievement is an important source of motivation. Obviously, both mothers and fathers are susceptible to this influence.

Unfortunately, both our assumption of the primacy of marital relations as a source of support/stress and our inclination to emphasize social networks as second in importance must remain speculative propositions. This is because no investigation to date has included each of the three contextual determinants of parenting discussed here in the study design. As a consequence, it remains impossible to test notions regarding the relative significance of all three contexts of support/stress. A clear imperative of future research is highlighted by this lacunae.

Parenting: A Buffered System

This analysis of the determinants of parental functioning, informed as it is by concern for the etiology of child mistreatment, suggests that parental functioning is influenced by a variety of forces, with its three major determinants being the personality/psychological well-being of the parent, the characteristics of the child, and contextual sources of stress and support. Because parental competence is multiply determined, it stands to reason that the parenting system is buffered against threats to its integrity that derive from weaknesses in any single source (Belsky, Robins, & Gamble, in press). When two of three determinants of parenting are at risk, it is proposed that parental functioning is most protected when the personal resource subsystem still functions to promote sensitive involvement and least protected when only the subsystem of child characteristics fulfills this function. Of course, this implies that, if something must go wrong in the parenting system, optimal functioning (defined in terms of producing competent offspring) will occur when personal psychological resources of parents are the only determinants that remain intact.

Evidence in support of the claim that risk characteristics in the child are relatively easy to overcome can be found in the literature on high-risk and difficult infants. Premature birth does not compromise subsequent development when rearing takes place in middle-class homes, where both personal resources and support systems are likely to function effectively (Sameroff & Chandler, 1975). Moreover, although studies of the effects of difficult infant temperament on maternal behavior show mixed results, the strongest support for the hypothesis that maternal perceptions of difficulty are concurrently associated with negative aspects of the mother-child relationship comes from samples that seem a priori at risk for relationship problems (Bates, 1980). Thus, unless the subsystems of support or personal resources are at risk, as they are more likely to be in impoverished homes, we do not find problematic parental functioning in the face of difficult child characteristics.

At present, no studies are available that test the claim that personal resources have the greatest potential for buffering the parenting system. This position remains tenable, nevertheless, because personal psychological resources are themselves likely to be instrumental in determining the quality of support one receives (see Figure 1). Consider, for example, the very real possibility that individual psychological characteristics affect not only the selection of a spouse, the establishment of friendships, and the job one obtains but the quality of the relationships one maintains with a spouse, friends, relatives and neighbors, and co-workers. Since it is also conceivable, at least according to our process model (see Figure 1), that developmental history shapes personal psychological well-being, the influences that marital relations, social network support, and work exert on parenting may themselves be traced back to personality and developmental history. It should be evident, then, that we regard personal psychological resources as the most influential determinant of parenting not simply for its direct effect on parental functioning but also because of the role it undoubtedly plays in recruiting contextual support.

No data exist to test the hypothesis of the primacy of personal psychological functioning because students of parent-child relations have not examined, in any single research effort, all three major determinants of parental functioning discussed in this essay. In view of this situation, a predictive model of the parenting system is offered that is founded on a differentiated analysis of the determinants of parenting (Belsky, Robins, & Gamble, in press). As noted previously, the system comprises three subsystems (personal psychological resources, child characteristics, and contextual sources of stress/

This content downloaded from
111.241.130.57 on Sun, 06 Jul 2025 08:18:32 UTC
All use subject to https://about.jstor.org/terms

support), each of which functions, in the model, according to one of two general modes, designated as support or stress. In actuality, just as in the conception of the model, each of the three subsystems is itself recognized to have a complex, multifactor arrangement, rendering the binary label of stress/support inappropriate. To be more accurate one should speak in terms of the *degree* of stress/support provided by each subsystem (and its constituent components—e.g., marriage, social network, work) rather than in the reductionistic terms of presence versus absence of stress/support. In the absence of the necessary empirical evidence, however, the trade-offs or dynamic interactions that take place between subsystems are far from clear. Hence, it is difficult to predict, for example, how much personal resource support is necessary to balance out child-determined stress. One has somewhat more confidence in simply maintaining that equal contributions by each contextual domain are not required to achieve a balance. Beyond a doubt, a considerable amount of theoretical and empirical work remains to be completed prior to achieving full understanding of the nature of the complex relationships that actually exist.

Despite these cautionary and qualifying remarks, Table 1 catalogues the projected parental outcomes, derived from the model, corresponding to the eight possible conditions that describe the total variability of the system's functioning. Not surprisingly, it is hypothesized that parents function most effectively when each subsystem operates in the supportive mode (+) and least competently when each subsystem operates in the stressful mode (−). When only two subsystems are in the supportive mode, we consider the parent's chances of providing optimal care to be greatest when the subsystems of personal resources and contextual support are positively activated and least when personal resources is the one dysfunctional system. The consequences for parenting of just one dimension supporting parenting have been alluded to earlier; these outcomes are appropriately ranked in Table 1.

Conclusion

In his writings on the ecology of human development, Bronfenbrenner (1977, p. 77) is fond of quoting Goethe ("What is the most difficult of all? That which seems to you the easiest, to see with one's eyes what is lying before them") and Walter Fenno Dearborn, a graduate school mentor ("If you want to understand something, try to change it"). When these statements are juxtaposed, they illustrate quite effectively the general reason dysfunction can illuminate normal functioning and, specifically, how the study of the etiology of child abuse can inform an analysis of the determinants of parenting.

In the routine ebb and flow of life, it is often difficult to discern normal processes.

TABLE 1

THEORETICAL MODEL OF THE RELATIVE PROBABILITY OF EFFECTIVE PARENTAL FUNCTIONING IN ALL POSSIBLE CONDITIONS OF PARENTING SYSTEMS

RELATIVE PROBABILITY OF PARENT FUNCTIONING COMPETENTLY	CONDITIONS OF THE PARENTAL SUBSYSTEMS		
	Parental Personality and Psychological Well-Being	Contextual Subsystems of Support	Child Characteristics
Highest	+	+	+
	+	+	−
	+	−	+
	−	+	+
	+	−	−
	−	+	−
	−	−	+
Lowest	−	−	−

NOTE.—Plus sign (+) stands for supportive mode; minus sign (−) stands for stressful mode.

This content downloaded from
111.241.130.57 on Sun, 06 Jul 2025 08:18:32 UTC
All use subject to https://about.jstor.org/terms

Any dysfunction, by creating a perturbation in this flow, reveals elements and/or relationships that might otherwise go unnoticed. The determinants of parental functioning are considered to be one such set of relatively unnoticed events and processes. The significance of parental dysfunction—in the form of child maltreatment—is its power to reveal mechanisms of influence, at least in the pathological range, governing parental behavior. Since parenting is not readily manipulated, it is difficult to implement the strategy promulgated by Bronfenbrenner's mentor for the study of socialization. But here an illuminating example is found of the "natural experiment," in that the concern of applied scientists for the etiology of child abuse instructs inquiry into more basic scientific issues. If one regards child maltreatment as a departure from normal parenting practices, then the study of child abuse, representing "changes" in parenting, serves not only to enhance understanding of the socialization process but, in so doing, reveals what is hardest to see because it lies right in front of our eyes—the determinants of individual differences in parenting, a topic that has received insufficient attention in the long history of socialization research.

Reference Notes

1. Price, G. *Factors influencing reciprocity in early mother-infant interaction.* Paper presented at the biennial meeting of the Society for Research in Child Development, New Orleans, March 1977.
2. Feldman, S., Nash, S., & Aschenbrenner, B. *Antecedents of fathering.* Unpublished manuscript, Stanford University, 1982.
3. Gibaud-Wallston, A., & Wandersman, L. P. *Development and utility of the parenting sense of competence scale.* Paper presented at the annual meeting of the American Psychological Association, Toronto, 1978.
4. Belle, D. E. *The social network as a source of both stress and support to low-income mothers.* Paper presented at the biennial meeting of the Society for Research in Child Development, Boston, April 1981.
5. Colletta, N. D., Lee, D., & Gregg, C. H. *The impact of support for adolescent mothers.* Unpublished manuscript, University of Maryland, n.d.
6. Colletta, N. D. *The influence of support systems on the maternal behavior of young mothers.* Paper presented at the biennial meeting of the Society for Research in Child Development, Boston, April 1981.

References

Aberle, D. F., & Naegele, K. D. Middle-class fathers' occupational role and attitudes toward children. *American Journal of Orthopsychiatry,* 1952, **22,** 366–378.

Abernethy, V. Social network and response to the maternal role. *International Journal of Sociology of the Family,* 1973, **3,** 86–92.

Aug, R. G., & Bright, T. P. A study of wed and unwed motherhood in adolescents and young adults. *Journal of the American Academy of Child Psychiatry,* 1970, **9,** 577–592.

Baldwin, A. L., Cole, R. E., & Baldwin, C. P. Parent pathology, family interaction, and the competence of the child in school. *Monographs of the Society for Research in Child Development,* 1982, **47**(5, Serial No. 197).

Bandura, A., & Walters, R. *Adolescent aggression.* New York: Ronald, 1959.

Bates, J. The concept of difficult temperament. *Merrill-Palmer Quarterly,* 1980, **26,** 299–319.

Baumrind, D. Child care practices anteceding three patterns of preschool behavior. *Genetic Psychology Monographs,* 1967, **75,** 43–88.

Baumrind, D. Current patterns of parental authority. *Developmental Psychology Monographs,* **4**(1), 1971.

Belsky, J. Three theoretical models of child abuse: A critical review. *International Journal of Child Abuse and Neglect,* 1978, **2,** 37–49.

Belsky, J. The interrelation of parental and spousal behavior during infancy in traditional nuclear families: An exploratory analysis. *Journal of Marriage and the Family,* 1979, **41,** 62–68.

Belsky, J. Child maltreatment: An ecological integration. *American Psychologist,* 1980, **35,** 320–335.

Belsky, J. Early human experience: A family perspective. *Developmental Psychology,* 1981, **17,** 3–23.

Belsky, J., Gilstrap, B., & Rovine, M. Stability and change in mother-infant and father-infant interaction in a family setting: One, three, and nine months. *Child Development,* in press.

Belsky, J., Lerner, R., & Spanier, G. *The child in the family.* Reading, Mass.: Addison-Wesley, in press.

Belsky, J., Robins, E., & Gamble, W. The determinants of parenting: Toward a contextual theory. In M. Lewis & L. Rosenblum (Eds.), *Social connections: Beyond the dyad.* New York: Plenum, in press.

Bronfenbrenner, U. Freudian theories of identification and their derivatives. *Child Development,* 1960, **31,** 15–40.

Bronfenbrenner, U. Toward an experimental ecology of human development. *American Psychologist,* 1977, **52,** 513–531.

This content downloaded from
111.241.130.57 on Sun, 06 Jul 2025 08:18:32 UTC
All use subject to https://about.jstor.org/terms

Bronfenbrenner, U., & Crouter, A. C. Work and family through time and space. In C. Hayes & S. Kamerman (Eds.), *Families that work: Children in a changing world.* Washington, D.C.: National Academy of Sciences, 1982.

Bronfenbrenner, U., & Crouter, A. C. The evolution of environmental models in developmental research. In P. Mussen (Ed.), *The handbook of child psychology.* New York: Wiley, 1983.

Brown, G. W., & Harris, T. *Social origins of depression: A study of psychiatric disorder in women.* New York: Free Press, 1978.

Campbell, S. Mother-infant interaction as a function of maternal ratings of temperament. *Child Psychiatry and Human Development,* 1979, **10,** 67–76.

Carveth, W. B., & Gottlieb, B. H. The measurement of social support and its relation to stress. *Canadian Journal of Behavioral Science,* 1979, **11,** 179–188.

Cochran, M., & Brassard, J. Child development and personal social networks. *Child Development,* 1979, **50,** 601–616.

Colletta, N. Support systems after divorce: Incidence and impact. *Journal of Marriage and the Family,* 1979, **41,** 837–846.

Colletta, N. D. At risk for depression: A study of young mothers. *Journal of Genetic Psychology,* in press.

Colletta, N. D., & Gregg, C. H. Adolescent mothers' vulnerability to stress. *Journal of Nervous and Mental Disease,* 1981, **169,** 50–54.

Coopersmith, S. *The antecedents of self-esteem.* San Francisco: W. H. Freeman, 1967.

Crnic, K. A., Greenberg, M. T., Ragozin, A. S., Robinson, N. M., & Basham, R. Effects of stress and social support on mothers and premature and full-term infants. *Child Development,* 1983, **54,** 209–217.

Crouter, A., Belsky, J., & Spanier, G. The family context of child development. In G. Whitehurst (Ed.), *Annals of child development* (Vol. 1). Greenwich, Conn.: JAI, in press.

De Frain, J. Androgynous parents tell who they are and what they need. *Family Coordinator,* 1979, **28,** 237–243.

Dielman, T., Barton, K., & Cattell, R. Relationships among family attitudes and child rearing practices. *Journal of Genetic Psychology,* 1977, **130,** 105–112.

Douvan, E. Employment and the adolescent. In F. I. Nye & L. W. Hoffman (Eds.), *The employed mother in America.* Chicago: Rand McNally, 1963.

Eiduson, B. T., & Alexander, J. W. The role of children in alternative family styles. *Journal of Social Issues,* 1978, **34,** 149–167.

Elder, G. H., Jr. *Children of the Great Depression.* Chicago: University of Chicago Press, 1974.

Fabian, A. A., & Donahue, J. F. Maternal depression: A challenging child guidance problem. *American Journal of Orthopsychiatry,* 1956, **26,** 400–405.

Farel, A. N. Effects of preferred maternal roles, maternal employment, and sociographic status on school adjustment and competence. *Child Development,* 1980, **50,** 1179–1186.

Field, T. M., Widmayer, S. M., Stringer, S., & Ignatoff, E. Teenage, lower-class, black mothers and their preterm infants: An intervention and developmental follow-up. *Child Development,* 1980, **51,** 426–436.

French, J., Rodgers, W., & Cobb, S. Adjustment as person-environment fit. In G. Cochlo, D. Hamberg, & J. Adams (Eds.), *Coping and adaptation.* New York: Basic, 1974.

Frommer, E., & O'Shea, G. Antenatal identification of women liable to have problems in managing their infants. *British Journal of Psychiatry,* 1973, **123,** 149–156. (a)

Frommer, E., & O'Shea, G. The importance of childhood experiences in relation to problems of marriage and family building. *British Journal of Psychiatry,* 1973, **123,** 157–160. (b)

Hall, F., Pawlby, S., & Wolkind, S. Early life experience and later mothering behavior: A study of mothers and their 20-week-old babies. In D. Shaffer & J. Dunn (Eds.), *The first year of life.* New York: Wiley, 1980.

Heath, D. H. Competent fathers: Their personality and marriages. *Human Development,* 1976, **19,** 26–39.

Hetherington, E. M., Cox, M., & Cox, R. The aftermath of divorce. In J. Stevens & M. Mathews (Eds.), *Mother-child, father-child relations.* Washington, D.C.: National Association for the Education of Young Children, 1977.

Hock, E. Working and nonworking mothers and their infants: A comparative study of maternal caregiving characteristics and infant social behavior. *Merrill-Palmer Quarterly,* 1980, **26,** 79–101.

Hoffman, L. W. Mothers' enjoyment of work and its effects on the child. *Child Development,* 1961, **32,** 187–197.

Hoffman, L. W. Mother's enjoyment of work and effects on the child. In F. I. Nye & L. W. Hoffman (Eds.), *The employed mother in America.* Chicago: Rand McNally, 1963.

Hoffman, L. W. Changes in family roles, socialization, and sex differences. *American Psychologist,* 1979, **32,** 644–657.

Hoffman, M. L. Moral development. In P. H. Mussen (Ed.), *Carmichael's manual of child*

This content downloaded from
111.241.130.57 on Sun, 06 Jul 2025 08:18:32 UTC
All use subject to https://about.jstor.org/terms

psychology (Vol. **2**). New York: Wiley, 1970.

Johnson, S., & Lobitz, G. The personal and marital adjustment of parents as related to observed child deviance and parenting behaviors. *Journal of Abnormal Child Psychology,* 1974, **2,** 193–207.

Jones, F. A., Green, V., & Krauss, D. R. Maternal responsiveness of primiparous mothers during the postpartum period: Age differences. *Pediatrics,* 1980, **65,** 579–583.

Kanter, B. Families, family processes, and economic life: Toward a systematic analysis of social historical research. In J. Demos & S. S. Boocock (Eds.), *Turning points: Historical and sociological essays on the family.* Chicago: University of Chicago Press, 1978.

Kelley, P. The relation of infant's temperament and mother's psychopathology to interactions in early infancy. In K. F. Riegel & J. A. Meacham (Eds.), *The developing individual in a changing world* (Vol. **11**). Chicago: Aldine, 1976.

Kemper, T., Reichler, M. Marital satisfaction and conjugal power as determinants of intensity and frequency of rewards and punishments administered by parents. *Journal of Genetic Psychology,* 1976, **129,** 221–234.

Kohn, M. Social class and parent-child relationships: An interpretation. *American Journal of Sociology,* 1963, **68,** 471–480.

Komarovsky, M. *The unemployed man and his family.* New York: Dryden, 1940.

Lamb, M., & Easterbrooks, M. Individual differences in parental sensitivity. In M. Lamb & L. Sherrod (Eds.), *Infant social cognition.* Hillsdale, N.J.: Erlbaum, 1980.

Lerner, R., & Lerner, J. Temperament-intelligence reciprocities in early childhood: A contextual model. In M. Lewis (Ed.), *Origins of intelligence* (2d ed.). New York: Plenum, in press.

Light, R. Abused and neglected children in America: A study of alternative policies. *Harvard Educational Review,* 1973, **43,** 556–598.

Manion, J. A study of fathers and infant caretaking. *Birth and the Family Journal,* 1977, **4,** 174–179.

McCall, R. B., Appelbaum, M. I., & Hagarty, P. S. Developmental changes in mental performance. *Monographs of the Society for Research in Child Development,* 1973, **38**(3, Serial No. 150).

McCord, J., McCord, W., & Thurber, E. Effects of maternal employment on lower-class boys. *Journal of Abnormal and Social Psychology,* 1963, **67,** 177–182.

McKinley, D. *Social class and family life.* New York: Free Press, 1964.

McLanahan, S., Wedemeyer, N., & Adelberg, T. Network structure, social support, and psychological well-being in the single-parent family. *Journal of Marriage and the Family,* 1981, **43,** 601–612.

Miller, J., Schooler, C., Kohn, M. L., & Miller, K. A. Women and work: The psychological effects of occupational conditions. *American Journal of Sociology,* 1979, **85,** 66–94.

Milliones, J. Relationship between perceived child temperament and maternal behavior. *Child Development,* 1978, **49,** 1255–1257.

Minturn, L., & Lambert, W. W. *Mothers of six cultures: Antecedents of childrearing.* New York: Wiley, 1964.

Mitchell, R., & Trickett, E. Task force report: Social networks as mediators of social support. *Community Mental Health Journal,* 1980, **16,** 27–44.

Moen, P. The two-provider family: Problems and potentials. In M. Lamb (Ed.), *Nontraditional families: Parenting and child development.* Hillsdale, N.J.: Erlbaum, 1982.

Mondell, S., & Tyler, F. Parental competence and styles of problem solving/play behavior with children. *Developmental Psychology,* 1981, **17,** 73–78.

Nuckolls, C. G., Cassell, J., & Kaplan, B. H. Psychological assets, life crises and the prognosis of pregnancy. *American Journal of Epidemiology,* 1972, **95,** 431–441.

Olweus, D. Familial and temperamental determinants of aggressive behavior in adolescent boys: A causal analysis. *Developmental Psychology,* 1980, **16,** 644–660.

Orraschel, H., Weissman, M. M., & Kidd, K. K. Children and depression: The children of depressed parents; the childhood of depressed patients; depression in children. *Journal of Affective Disorders,* 1980, **2**(1), 1–16.

Osofsky, J. J., & Osofsky, J. D. Adolescents as mothers. *American Journal of Orthopsychiatry,* 1970, **40,** 825.

Parke, R., & Collmer, C. Child abuse: An interdisciplinary review. In E. M. Hetherington (Ed.), *Review of child development research* (Vol. **5**). Chicago: University of Chicago Press, 1975.

Pascoe, J. M., Loda, F. A., Jeffries, V., & Easp, J. A. The association between mother's social support and provision of stimulation to their children. *Developmental and Behavioral Pediatrics,* 1981, **2,** 15–19.

Pedersen, F. Mother, father, and infant as an interactive system. In J. Belsky (Ed.), *In the beginning: Readings on infancy.* New York: Columbia University Press, 1982.

Pollitt, J. *Depression and its treatment.* London: Heinemann, 1965.

Powell, D. R. Personal social networks as a focus

This content downloaded from
111.241.130.57 on Sun, 06 Jul 2025 08:18:32 UTC
All use subject to https://about.jstor.org/terms

for primary prevention of child maltreatment. *Infant Mental Health Journal,* 1980, **1,** 232–239.

Power, T., & Parke, R. Social network factors and the transition to parenthood. *Sex Roles,* in press.

Propper, A. M. The relationship of maternal employment to adolescent roles, activities, and parental relationships. *Journal of Marriage and the Family,* 1972, **34,** 417–421.

Ragozin, A. S., Basham, R. B., Crnic, K. A., Greenberg, M. T., & Robinson, N. M. Effects of maternal age on parenting role. *Developmental Psychology,* 1982, **18,** 627–634.

Reuter, M. W., & Biller, H. B. Perceived paternal nurturance-availability and personality adjustment among college males. *Journal of Consulting and Clinical Psychology,* 1973, **40,** 339–342.

Rutter, M. *Children of sick patients: An environmental and psychiatric study,* Institute of Psychiatry, Maudsley Monographs No. 16. London: Oxford University Press, 1966.

Sagi, A. Antecedents and consequences of various degrees of paternal involvement in childrearing: The Israeli project. In M. E. Lamb (Ed.), *Nontraditional families: Parenting and child development.* Hillsdale, N.J.: Erlbaum, 1982.

Sameroff, A., & Chandler, M. J. Reproductive risk and the continuum of caretaking casualty. In F. D. Horowitz (Ed.), *Review of child development research* (Vol. **4**). Chicago: University of Chicago Press, 1975.

Schubert, J. B., Bradley-Johnson, S., & Nuttal, J. Mother-infant communication and maternal employment. *Child Development,* 1980, **51,** 246–249.

Sears, R., Maccoby, E., & Levin, H. *Patterns of child rearing.* Evanston, Ill.: Row, Peterson, 1957.

Steinberg, L., Catalano, R., & Dooley, D. Economic antecedents of child abuse and neglect. *Child Development,* 1981, **52,** 975–985.

Stolz, L. M. *Influences on parent behavior.* Stanford, Calif.: Stanford University Press, 1967.

Stuckey, M., McGhee, P., & Bell, N. Parent-child interaction. The influence of maternal employment. *Developmental Psychology,* 1982, **18,** 635–644.

Toms-Olson, J. The impact of housework on childcare in the home. *Family Relations,* 1981, **30,** 75–81.

Wandersman, L., Wandersman, A., & Kahn, S. Social support in the transition to parenthood. *Journal of Community Psychology,* 1980, **8,** 332–342.

Weissman, M. M., & Paykel, E. S. *The depressed woman: A study of social relations.* Chicago: University of Chicago Press, 1974.

Woods, M. B. The unsupervised child of the working mother. *Developmental Psychology,* 1972, **6,** 14–25.

Yarrow, M. R., Scott, P., DeLeeuw, L., & Heinig, C. Childrearing in families of working and nonworking mothers. *Sociometry,* 1962, **25,** 122–140.

Young, M., & Willmott, P. *Family and kinship in East London.* London: Penguin, 1957.

This content downloaded from
111.241.130.57 on Sun, 06 Jul 2025 08:18:32 UTC
All use subject to https://about.jstor.org/terms